CHAPTER – 5

ANALYSIS OF THE PRAMANAS OF ĀSTIKA DARŚANAS IN THE CONTEXT OF PLURALISTIC INCLUSIVENESS

5.0 Introduction

Pramāṇas are the means to knowledge. In different Darśanas there are distinct views regarding the methods of acquiring knowledge. For instance, to the naiyāyikas jnāna is ātma dharma. To know is a karma. Kumārila Bhaṭṭa calls the means to right knowledge Pramāṇas. To Prabhakara Misra, it is samvith.

Both Mīmāmsakas and vedāntins believe that every knowledge is true and real until it is proved wrong by an opposite knowledge. On the other hand, Naiyāyikas and Vaiśeṣikas consider every knowledge as untrue or false until it is proved by a convincing proof. The Bouddhas also refuse to accept anything as true until its truth is proved.

To the Mīmāmsakas who believe in the existence of the universe and the external objects, that knowledge which is conducive to the characteristics of the external objects is real knowledge or Jñāna. But the Boudhas do not accept the existece of the external objects. While the Mīmāmsakas say that Jñāna can materialise only if there are jñāta and jñeya, the Buddhists hold the view that there is only Jñāna. For the

realisation of Jñāna, diverse darsanikas point out different mārgas, or ways.

5.1 The Philosophical Background of the pramanas

In India Polytheism and atheism existed side by side with idol worship and advaita. When some philosophers expressed their difference with some dogmas of Nyāya Darśanas, others accepted and followed their methods of argument for the purpose of getting acceptance to their theories. Both Nyāya and Vaiśeṣika Darśanas followed common principles and dogmas, but there were differences in the old and new schools of darśannikas even in the same Darśanas. For instance, though the new school of Vaiśeṣika speaks of seven padarthas the ancient school considers only six of them. They had refused to accept abhava as a padartha.

The atheists known as cārvākas accepted only one Pramāṇa, which is Pratyakṣa. Vaiśeṣika acknowledged two Pramāṇas such as Pratyakṣa and anumāna. The Naiyyayikas, however, added two more making the list four, such as Pratyakṣa, Anumāna, Upamāna and sabda. The number of Pramāṇas recognized by Sāṅkhya and Yoga Darśanas is only three because they do not recognize Upamāna as a Pramāṇa. The Mīmāmsakas and the vedantins accept six Pramāṇas including Arthāpatti and Anupalabdi.

Gautama speaks about sixteen padārthas in his Sūtras. The Mīmāmsa states that there are eight padarthas. Aristotle in the West has mentioned ten properties such as substance (dravya). Guṇa (quality), parimāṇa (quantity), bandha (relation), desa (place), kalam (time), posture (sthāna), property (saviśeṣatha action or karma), and niṣkriyatha (passivity).

Like Nyāya -Vaiśeṣika Darśanas Sāṅkhya and Yoga Darśanas are also complementary to each other. Nyāya Darśanas is also known as Hetuvidya, Hetu śāstra, Tarka vidya, Vāda vidya and Pramāṇa sāstra. Prama means knowledge and Pramāṇa means which leads to knowledge.

Kanāda's Vaiśeṣika Sūtras are the basis of Vaiśeṣika Darśana. Kanāda calls prameyas, padārthas. He put forward three padārthas, which are dravya, guṇa and karma. Later dārśanikas added four more padārthas such as samānya, Viśeṣa, samanvaya and abhava and increased their number to seven. The Prabhakara school of Mīmāmsa accepts five sources of knowledge or Pramāṇas viz. Pratyakṣa, Anumāna, Upamāna, Śabda and Arthāpathi. The first four of this list are acknowledged by Nyāya Darśana. However, the school of Mīmāmsa established by Kamarila Bhatta admits six Pramāṇas by adding one more, that is, Anupalabdi, which is cognition due to non existence.

Vedānta system, developed through the Brahma Sūtra or Badarāyaṇa Sūtra of Badarāyaṇa and the essence of the major upaniṣads and their bhāṣyas, has exerted great influence on Indian Philosophy. Sankaracarya interpreted the upaniṣads and Brahma Sūtra to show that God is the only reality, and there is nothing except God. Rāmānujācārya interpreted vedānta slightly differently. He states that God is the only reality, but within God there exists different unconscious material objects and many conscious souls. In other words, though God is the only Reality, and there is nothing outside God, within God there are many other realities. Hence the Advaita of Rāmānuja is called Viśiṣṭādvaita.

Like the Kumārila school of Mīmāmsa the Advaita schools of Sankara and Ramanuja as well as other vedānta schools accept all the six Pramāṇas.

The Nyāya is a philosophy of life which tries to guide individual selvas in their search for truth and freedom. Like the Nyāya, the Vaiśeṣika also adopts a realistic view of the self. The self is indestructible and eternal. It is infinite since not limited by time and space.[1] The self is not mere consciousness or knowledge, but ego (ahasikarārāśraya) and also an enjoyer (bhoktā). (Nyāya Sūtra and Bhāṣya.3.1.4)

While Nyāya Darśana recognize the senses as the cause of Jñāna , to Sānkya it is the response created in the mind by the senses. Sānkya philosophers accept only three pramānas such as perceptions inference, and verbal testimony. Probably the Sānkya scholars have not developed these pramānas, but borrowed them from the Darsanas if Nyāya and Vaiśeṣika.[2] Yoga follows the same pattern of pramānas accepted by Sānkhya Darsana. However, under verbal testimony it includes not only sruthi or the scriptures, but also the words of āpta reliable persons.

The most fundamental concepts of Indian Darśanas are prama and pramanas. Prama is a term used to signify cognition or Jñāna. Buddist scholars hold that prama is knowledge that is practically useful and pramana is the means by which such knowledge is brought about. Two definitions are given by Dharmaraja Advarindra. One of them includes memory also in it. The second definition includes novelty or newness as a chief feature of valid knowledge. [3]The experience which revals knowledge proper is termed anubhuti and knowledge reproduced is called smrti.[4]

5.2. Pratyakṣam (Perception) as a Pramāṇa in Nyāya and Vaiśeṣika Darśanas

In generally accepted definition of Pratyakṣa by Nyāya Darśana is : "a definite cognition which is produced by sense object contact, and is true or unerring."[5] However some Naiyāyikas reject this definition because

there may be perception without sense – object contact. So they define perception as immediate cognition or Sākṣāt pratiti.

There are laukika and alaukika perceptions, which can be explained as ordinary and extraordinary perceptions. There is also the distinction between bāhya (external) and mānasa (internal) perceptions. Laukika perception is divided into six such as Cākṣusa (visual), Śrautra (auditory), Sparśana (tactual), rāsana (gustatory), ghrāṇaja (olfactory) and mānasa (internal) perceptions.

Alaukika perception is extra ordinary and of three kinds – sāmānya lakṣaṇa, Jñāna lakṣaṇa and Yogaja.

The perception of a class or group of objects based on a sāmānya (universal quality) is called sāmānya lakṣaṇa. Since it is different from ordinary perception. It is considered as alaukika or extraordinary perception. Jñāna lakṣaṇa is the second kind of extraordinary perception. For eg. in the expression ice cold look, it feels that the coldness of ice is seen through the eyes. Similarly the sight of beautiful flowers may bring the knowledge of its fragrance to the mind.[6] The third kind of alaukika Pratyakṣa is known as Yogaja. Only yogis with superhuman powers can experience the intuitive perception of things from past, future etc.

Ordinary perception is also of three categories such as Nirvikalpa, Savikalpa and Pratuabhijñā, based on the mode of perception. Nirikalpa is immediate cognition of an object. It is also called indeterminate perception. Here cognition occurs at the moment of the contact between the object and the sense organ. Savikalpa perception is determinate because it is a kind of recognition, or knowledge based on a previous sense experience or nirvikalpa perception. Pratyabhijñā is pure recognition as it is related to memory. For eg: one may say, this must be the person who helped me yesterday.

Vaiśeṣika, Sāṅkhya and the Mīmāmsa systems accept the Nyāya views on Pratyakṣa Pramāṇa.

According to Nyāya theory there are four separate sources of true knowledge. They are 1) Pratyakṣa, 2) Anumāna, 3) Upamāna 4) Śabda. Western philosophy has not made attempts to properly discuss the possibilities of perception generally, people do not question the truth behind what is perceived by the senses. However, Indian Darśanas are critical of this view. In Nyāya Sūtra (1.1.4) perception is defined a definite cognition produced by sense – object contact .Some Indian philosophers define perception as immediate cognition (Sākṣatpratīti), though in most cases there is sense – object contact.[7]

There are different methods of classification for perception. For instance, there is the distinction between laukika (ordinary) and alaukika (extraordinary) perceptions. This distinction is made based on how the senses come into contact with the objects. Laukika perception occurs when the sense – object contact is ordinary and in alaukika perception the object may not be ordinarily present to sense. It may be conveyed to the sense through some unusual medium. There are also external (bhāhya) and internal (mānasa) perceptions.

According to the dogmas of the Nyāya, Vaiśeṣika and Jaina Darśanas the sense organs are six-five external sense organs, which are smell (ghrāna), taste (rasanā), sight (cakṣuh), touch (tvak), hearing (Śrotra) and one internal organ called manas (mind). The mind or manas is capable of perceiving the qualities of the soul such as iccha (desire), dveṣa (aversion) prayatna (striving), sukha (pleasure), dukha (pain), cognition (Jñāna) etc.[8]

Alaukika (Extraordinary) perception is classified into three - Sāmānyalakṣaṇa, Jñāna lakṣaṇa and Yogaja. The perception of a class or group of objects as having some characteristics or qualities due to their universal nature or (Sāmānya) is called Sāmānya lakṣaṇa perception. Since it is different from ordinary perception it is grouped under alaukika (extra ordinary) perception.

In Jñāna lakṣaṇa perception, the knowledge occurs due to the revival of our past knowledge. (Eg. when the sight of a rose flower brings to our mind the knowledge of its fragrance). It is termed extraordinary (alaukika) perception as the knowledge of the smell is brought by the eye, and not by the nose. Yogaja is perception due to meditation, possessed by Yogis due to Yogabhāṣa: There are two kinds of ordinary perception.[9] Nirvikalpa and Savikalpa (indeterminate and determinate) perceptions. A third kind of perception is recognition or Pratyabhijñā.

5.2.1 Prathyakṣam in Sāṅkhya and Yoga Darśanas

The Sāṅkhya Darśana accepts only three sources of valid knowledge or Pramāṇa which are perception, inference and scriptural testimony or Śabda. The Pramāṇas accepted by other Darśanas such as Upamāna arthāpatti and Anupalabdhi are included under the above three Pramāṇas.

Perception is the direct cognition of an object through contact withy some sense organ. Just as a mirror reflects the light of a lamp buddhi reflects the consciousness of the self and conveys the knowledge of the object. This idea is explained by Vacaspati Miśra and Vijñāna bhiksu.[10] The reflection theory of knowledge is also seen in Vyāsa's Bhāṣya of Yoga-Sūtra.[11]

There are three factors to be considered in all valid knowledge according to Sāṅkhya the subject (Pramata), the object (Prameya) and the source of knowledge (Pramāṇa) There are two kinds of perception (Pratyakṣa) such as nirvikalpa (indeterminate) and savikalpa (determinate). The former occurs due to the contact between a sense organ and an object. The result is cognition and not recognition. This experience cannot be communicated by words. The latter kind of perception occurs as the result of analysis of data by the mind. It can be expressed by a word or a sentence.

Anumāna or inference occurs due to the knowledge regarding the relation (vyāpti) between what is perceived and what is not perceived by (but guessed or inferred). The third Pramāṇa is testimony or Śabda, according to Sāṅkhya and Yoga. It is also known as aptavacana or the testimony of a reliable person. There are two kinds of Śabda, which are laukika and alaukika (vaidika). The laukika Śabda is the testimony of an ordinary person. On the other hand, only scriptural statements like the Śruti or the vedas belong to the category of the alaukika Śabda. The vedas contain the intuitions of the ṛṣis or seers. So they can be considered as Vaidika Śabda.

The three Pramāṇas accepted by Yoga are Pratyakṣa, Anumāna and Śabda (Āgama).

Pratyakṣānumānāgamaḥ Pramāṇāni.[12] We have a case of perception when the mind (Citta) is affected by some external object through the sense organs.[13]

इन्द्रियप्रणालिकया

चित्तस्य बाह्यवस्तूपरागात्तद्विषया

सामान्यविशेषात्मनोथस्य विशेषावधारणप्रधाना

[illegible]

Thus the mental modification is directly related to the object.

Sāṅkhya Darśanas defines Pratyakṣa as direct cognition of an object through its contact with a sense organ. The name given to perception is Dṛṣṭa.[14]

प्रतिविषयाध्यवसायो दृष्टम् |

Vacaspathi Miśra gives a detailed explanation of the characteristics of perception such as Laukika and Alaukika perception. Kapila Muni defines perception as the cognition of the mode of buddhi which assumes the form of an object. The Sāṅkhya – Sūtra defines perception as the achievement of exact knowledge, which conjoined with the thing perceived, portrays its form.[15]

यत्संबन्धं सत्तदाकारोल्लेखि विज्ञानं तत्प्रत्यक्षम् | (SS. 1.89)

The perception of those who are Yoga experts is not external perception. Īsvara Kṛṣṇa defines Pratyakṣa as the cognition which comes in contact with particular objects or when the sense organ is in contact with the object.[16]

[illegible]धातिशयसम्बन्धात् वा अदोषः | [17]

and

प्रतिविषयाध्यवसायो दृष्टम् |

5.2.2 Pratyakṣa**m as a** Pramāṇa **in the** Mīmāmsa **and** Vedanta Darśanas

Both Āstika and Nāstika Darśanas accept Pratyakṣa as the foremost among the Pramāṇas.[18]

Pratyakṣasya Pramāṇesu jyeṣṭhatvaditi.[19] Like ithe Naiyayikas the Mīmāmsa also accepts Pratyakṣa as created by direct sense – object contact. Kumarila Bhaṭṭa says that Pratyakṣa is due to the intercourse of the sense – organs with the objects.[20] The Mīmāmsa view of perception is similar to that of the Nyāya Darśana.

Prabhakara defines perception as direct apprehension (sākṣāt - pratītiḥ). Perception (Pratyakṣa) deals with only objects that are perceptible by the sense organs. Both Prabhakara and Kumarila accept

the distinction between determinate and indeterminate perception. Both are accepted as valid Pramāṇa. While the former is called Savikalpa Pratyakṣa, the later is called Nirvikalpa Pratyakṣa.

Kumarila Bhaṭṭa defines indeterminate perception as simple apprehension of an object, which is pure and simple. In it there is no apprehension of having generic or specific features.

Prabhakara Miśra, on the other hand, holds that indeterminate perception is the apprehension of the Svarūpamātra (bare nature) an object with its generic (Sāmānya) and specific (Viśeṣa) qualities.

Jaimini in his Sūtra accepts only three Pramāṇas as means to knowledge – they are Pratyakṣam, Anumānam and Āptavākyam. Later Kumarila Bhaṭṭa added Anupalabdi and Prabhakara Miśra added Upamāna and Arthapathi also to the list.[21]

Both Mīmāmsakas and Naiyayikas define Anumana in the same manner, but about Upamāna they have different views. Mīmāmsa gives much importance to Āptavākya. It means the words of a reliable person. It may also contain the transcendental knowledge conveyed by a Yoga. Āptavākya is of two kinds - Pauruṣeya and Apauruṣeya. The former is the word of a reliable person, while the latter refers to scriptural statements.

This differentiation is made by Kumarila Bhaṭṭa. Prabhakara Miśra recognized only scriptural words as Āptavākya.

Mīmāmsakar accepts Arthapathi as an independent means to knowledge. Kumarila Bhaṭṭa accepted Anupalabdhi as an independent Pramāṇa, but Prabhakara did not accept it, because he considered it as related to an object which has no existence. The Mīmāmsa schools of philosophy follow slightly different views of acāryas like Kumarila Bhaṭṭa and Prabhakara Miśra. Both schools admit two kinds of valid knowledge – immediate, and mediate. They define valid knowledge as new information about something, which is not contradicted by any other knowledge.

When an object comes into contact with a sense organ nirvikalpa Pratyakṣa or immediate cognition occurs. This indeterminate knowledge is also called ālocana Jñāna. The knowledge received due to the interpretation of the object by the mind in the light of past knowledge, it is called Savikalpa or determinate perception.

Thus Pratyakṣa or perception can occur at two stages. It gives us a real knowledge of the world, which is composed of different objects.

5.3.Anumāna (influence) as a Pramāṇa in Nyāya - Vaiśeṣika Darśanas

Among the four Pramāṇas accepted by Nyāya and Vaiśeṣika Anumāna is the second.

In sanskrit 'anu' means 'after' and 'māna' is knowledge. In the illustration "the hill is on fire, because smoke rises from there, and there can't be any smoke without fire", the knowledge is based on the previous knowledge of the relation between smoke and fire. Hence Anumāna or inference is a process of reasoning. B.N. Seal explains Anumāna is the process of ascertaining, not by direct observation, but through the medium of a mark of certain character possessed by a thing.[22]

An inference has three terms or propositions. Firstly the knowledge or perception of smoke in the hill, which is a mark leading to other knowledge secondly, there is the knowledge regarding the relation between smoke and fire, and thirdly, the resulting knowledge of the presence of fire.

In Indian logic inference is a syllogism having three propositions. In western logic a syllogism is stated in the form of three propositions. The first is the major premise, the second is the minor premise and the last is the conclusion. In the Nyāya system, for the Anumāna to become

conclusive, must be stated in the form of five propositions, which are pratijña, hetu, udāharaṇa, upanayana and nigamana. [23]

The concomitance between the hetu and the sadhya is regarded as the logical ground of inference; it is technically called vyāpti. Upadhi is the condition under which the inference takes place. The Naiyayikas give three different classifications of inference. The first classification divided it into svārtha and parārtha. The SvārthAnumāna is inference for oneself, while pararthAnumāna is inference meant for others.

Anumāna literally means cognition that follows an other knowledge. The most common example is seeing the smoke at a distance and to guess the presence of fire there. Here cognition occurs due to the prior knowledge that smoke is a sign of the presence of fire. Here smoke is the liṅga (mark) and fire is the sādhya (possibility).

5.3.1 Anumāna (Inference) in Sāṅkhya – Yoga Darśanas

Sāṅkhya considers Anumāna or inference as the knowledge of one term of a relation, which is not perceived, through a perceived knowledge. In other woods, what is perceived leads to the knowledge something that is not perceived. To reach this knowledge what helps is the knowledge of a universal relation (vyāpti) between the two. To get the vyāpti (relation) between two things repeated observation of their concomitance is

necessary. One single instance of their relation is not enough to establish the universal relation between the two.

The Sāṅkhya system also accepts the classification of inference adopting the view of the Nyāya Darśana. However, there are slight differences. Inference is first divided into two vita and avīta – (affirmative and negative). The vīta and avīta – (affirmative and negative). The vīta is subdivided into Pūrvavat and sāmānya to dṛṣṭa. A Pūrvavat and Sāmānya to dṛṣṭa. A Pūrvavat inference is based on the observed uniformity of concomitance between two things. When the inference is not based on the observed concomitance it is called sāmānya to dṛṣṭa.[24]

5.3.2 Anumāna (Inference) in Pūrva – Mīmāmsa and Uttara – Mīmāmsa (Vedanta)

Pūrva Mīmāmsa school of Indian philosophy gives more importance to the ritualistic side of the vedas. In 12 elaborate chapters the Sūtra of Jaimini laid the basis of the Pūrva Mīmāmsa. The most essential texts of this school are the Bhāṣya of Sabaraswamy and the writings of Kumarila Bhaṭṭa and Prabakara Miśra. The Mīmāmsa School discusses elaborately the Pramāṇas or the means to valid knowledge, which are 6 Pratyakṣa, Anumāna, Upamāna, Śabda, Arthapatti and Anupalabdhi (accepted by Kumarila, but rejected by Prabhakara). The Mīmāmsa theory of Anumāna (inference) is almost similar to that of Nyāya Darśanas.

5.4. Upamāna (Comparison) as a Pramāṇa in Nyāya Darśana

In Nyāya Darśanas the third Pramāṇa or source of valid knowledge is Upamāna (comparison). It provides knowledge regarding the relation between a word and what is denotes. (Sanjña sanjñi sambandha).

L.S. Stebbing explains the situation thus:

Suppose a musical instrument like a trumpet. "When we see such an instrument in an orchestra, we regonize it as a saxophone.[25]

The common word used to explain Upamāna is 'analogy'. Resemblance between two objects is the key factor in Upamāna. It arises through the previous knowledge of the resemblance. Though the scope of this Pramāṇa is narrow, in practice it is very useful. The term Upamāna is divided from the words 'Upa', which signifies similarity and māna which means cognition. Hence Upamāna is knowledge due to similarity between two things.

While the Nyāya, Mīmāmsa and the Vedanta systems accept Upamāna as an independent means of knowledge (Pramāṇa), other Darśanas reject it as an independent Pramāṇa.

In Nyāya Darśanas, the views of Gautama, Vatsyayana and Uddyotakara regarding Upamāna are different, but all accept the fact that it conveys the knowledge through similarity. Hence Upamāna is

recognized as a source of valid knowledge by Nyāya philosophy. However other Darśanas like Vaiśeṣika and Sāṅkhya explain it as a form of inference. The Jaina Darśana discuss Upamāna as recognition pratyabijña. Thought the Mīmāmsa and Vedanta systems accept it as an independent Pramāṇa their explanations are different from those of the Nyāya philosophy.

Nyāya Vaiśeṣika, 1.1.6

Tarkasangraha, p. 63.

Tattva Kaumudi, p.5.

Premeya kamala mārtanda. Ch. III Sāstra dīpika, pp. 74-76.

Vedanta paribhāṣa. Ch. III.

5.4.1 Upamāna **(Comparison) in** Sāṅkhya **–** Yoga Darśanas

The Sāṅkhya Darśana theory accepts only there independent sources of knowledge, which are perception, inference and scriptural testimony or Śabda. So these is no provision for Upamāna as a Pramāṇa in both Sāṅkhya and Yoga Darśanas.

The Sāṅkhya as well as Yoga Darśana considers Upamāna as a form of Anumāna, and therefore not an independent means of knowledge or Pramāṇa. Sāṅkhya Karika states that Pramāṇas other than Pratyakṣa Anumāna and Śabda are to be included under any one of these

Pramāṇas. There are Sāṅkhya philosophers who consider Upamāna as either a part of Pratyakṣa or Śabda also.

5.4.2 Upamāna (Comparison) in Pūrva – Mīmāmsa and Uttara – Mīmāmsa Darśanas

Both Mīmāmsa and Advaita Vedanta philosophers give an independent Pramāṇa position to Upamāna. However Viśiṣta Advaita school of Ramānujacarya includes Upamāna under perception, inference or verbal testimony based on the particular aspect of the Upamāna, and refuses it an independent Pramāṇa status.

Madhavacārya of the Dvaita school of Vedanta also states that like Arthapatti, Upamāna under perception, inference and verbal testimony based on the situation of its use.

The Advaita school of Sri. Saṅkarācārya upholds Upamāna as an independent Pramāṇa. However there is fundamental difference between the concept of Upamāna made by Advaita and the Nyāya Darśana. According to Nyāya point of view Upamāna provides a new knowledge about an object and acts as a means to knowledge, and hence a Pramāṇas. Advaita, on the other hard looks at Upamāna as providing the knowledge pertaining to the similarity between two objects.

In his Vedanta paribhāṣa Dharmarāja dhvarindra defines Upamāna as: "a Karaṇa of Upamiti which in turn is the resultant knowledge in the form of similarity.[26]

□□ □□□□

unperceived thing based on the cognition provided by some other object.[27]

Verbal Testimony is of two kinds –

(1) knowledge provided by the words of a reliable person.

(2) knowledge received from the words of a scriptural text.

The Nyāyayikas accept the vedas as eternal because they are produced by God who is omniscient. The Mīmāmsakas also look at the vedas as the word of God, is and hence without error.

The Nyāya Sūtra considers a verbal statement as valid when it comes from a person who knows the truth and speaks the truth about anything for the guidance of another person.[28] It is only when one understands the meanings of spoken words that any knowledge can be acquired from verbal statements. Hence proper understanding of the meaning of the statements is very important in the Śabda Pramāṇas. The former relates to statements about perceptible objects, and the latter relates to statements about unperceivable objects. [Nyāya Sūtra and Bhāṣya 1.18]

Moreover testimony of scriptural statements is called Vaidika and the testimony by ordinary persons is termed laukika.

Nyāya gives equal important to the testimony of the scriptures and the words of a trustworthy person as truth

5.5.1 Śabda **(**Āgama**) or Verbal Testimony in** Sāṅkhya **–** Yoga Darśana

Śabda or Āgama is the third Pramāṇa in Sāṅkhya Darśana. It is the authoritative statement (āptavacama) made in the scriptures (vedas). It may give knowledge about objects which cannot be known by either perception or inference. A word is a sign which denotes something. In other words the word acts like a symbol denoting some object. To understand and the meaning of the statement, the artha (meaning) of the constituent words is to be known.

There are two kinds of Śabda, laukika and alaukika (vaidika). Laukika is the word of an ordinary person. It is not reconized as a Pramāṇa by Sāṅkhya. Only the testimony of Śruti or vedas is accepted as a Pramāṇa, because they are considered infallible being the intuitions of enlightened ṛṣis or seers. The words of the vedas are considered impersonal (apaurseya) arising out of the spiritual experiences of saints or seers.

Śabda or Āgama, which is also known as verbal testimony or verbal authority has been accepted by all philosophical schools of India except Cārvāka, Buddhist Darśana and the Vaiśeṣika, as an independent

Pramāṇa. The Vaiśeṣika Darśana refuses to accept Śabda as a means to knowledge because they consider it as a kind of Anumāna. In both Anumāna and Śabda one gets cognition of an object from the Pratyakṣa of some related object.

Sāṅkhya as well as Yoga Darśanas recognize only three Pramāṇas- Pratyakṣa Anumāna and Śabda or verbal testimony. Both Sāṅkhya and Yoga consider comparison postulation and non-cognition as included in the above three Pramāṇas. Śabda or Āpta vacana is an important Pramāṇa became it gives the knowledge which cannot be received from other sources. The understanding of a scriptural statement depends on the understanding of the meaning of the words in it. There are two kinds of Śabda – the laukika and vaidika. The for4mer is the testimony of reliable persons, and the latter is the words of the vedas, which are considered free from error and hence infallible. They are regarded as (apauruṣa) because they embody the intuition of the ṛṣis or seers.

Scriptural statements are considered Śruti which give knowledge which cannot be received through perception and inference. Hence Sāṅkhya Darśana gives importance to Śabda as a Pramāṇa.

The Yoga applied the theory of Sāṅkhya in practical life. Like Sāṅkhya it also accepts the three Pramāṇas. It gives the Smṛtis and purāṇas. importance as Śabda provides divine knowledge.

5.5.2 Śabda or Āgama (Verbal Testimony) in Pūrva – Mīmāmsa and Uttara – Mīmāmsa (Vedanta)

Mīmāmsa school gives great importance to Śabda as a Pramāṇa, because it justifies the authority of the scriptures. Verbal testimony is of two kinds - Pauruṣa ana apauruṣeya. The force is the written or spoken testimony of persons. The latter is the authoritative statements of the vedas. Though Mīmāmsa school does not believe in God as a creator or destroyer of the world, it believes that the vedas are eternal.[29]

The Mīmāmsa school believes that the vedas are intended for directing rituals. They also serve the purpose of persuading people to the act of performing the rituals.[30] Infact the Mīmāmsa attitude to the scriptures is pragmatic. In other words, it looks at the vedas as useful for practical purpose.

As nothing definite is known about the origin of the vedas, it is believed that they were revealed to ṛṣis in the form of hymns. The vedas are considered infallible or without any defects, because they are not the works of imperfect persons.

Apart from the vedas, the testimony to āpta (a reliable person) is also accepted[31] as Pramāṇas by the Bhaṭṭa school of Mīmāmsakas.[32]

The Prabhakara school of Mīmāmsa, on the other hand, like the Vaiśeṣika looks at the testimony of non-vedic authority as inference depending on the reliability of the person.

The Advaita Vedanta gives Pramāṇa position to Śabda, and Paribhāṣakara treats Śabda as the most important Pramāṇas. In his Vedanta paribhāṣ Dharmarājadhvarindra defines Śabda thus:

यस्य वाक्यस्य तात्पय विषयीभूतसंसर्गः

मानान्तरेण न बाध्यते तद्वाक्यं प्रमाणम् । [33]

That sentence is a means of valid knowledge whose syntactical connection is arrived at by its import and which is not stultified by another means of valid knowledge.

Thus Dharmarāja dhvarindra establishes Śabda or Āgama (verbal testimony) on an independent means of valid knowledge in his Vedanta paribhāṣa.

5.6. Arthapatti **(presumption) as a** Pramāṇa **in** Pūrva **–** Mīmāmsa Darśana

Arthapatti, also known as presumption or postulation, is considered as a valid Pramāṇa by both Pūrva – Mīmāmsa and Advaita Darśana, where as the Nyāya, Sāṅkhya and Buddhist reject it as an independent source of knowledge. 'Arthapathi is the process of assuming an unknown fact in order to explain something which is otherwise unexplainable. Since

all assumptions are only made based on imagination, and cannot always he true Nyāya - Vaiśeṣika Darśanas do not accept it as a Pramāṇa.

Jayanta Bhaṭṭa considers Anumāna and Arthapatti as identical. The Sāṅkhya Darśanas is explains Arthapatti as a form of Anumāna. The Vaiśeṣika views Arthapatti or presumption is a kind of Anumāna. However, the Mīmāmsa philosophers argue that Arthapatti and Anumāna are different; and it is a kind of negative Anumāna. Both the Bhaṭṭa school and the school of Prabhakara, both Mīmāmsakas holding different views, agree that Arthapatti is an independent source of knowledge.

In this Bhāṣya Sabaraswami explain Arthapatti thus:

[illegible]

नोपपद्यते इत्यथ[illegible]

यथा जीवति देवदत्ते गृहाभावदर्शनेन

बहिर्भावस्यादृष्टस्य कल्पना ||

(Sabara Bhāṣya 1.1.5, p. 38)

Kumarila Bhaṭṭa describes different kinds of Arthapatti in Śloka Vartika (p. 390). The difference between Anumāna (inference) and Arthapatti (assumption) according to Prabhakara Miśra, is that the element of doubt as to the truth of two inconsistent facts perceived is removed by

Arthapatti. However, this view of Prabhakara is not acceptable to Kumarila Bhaṭṭa.

5.6.1 Arthapathi (Presumption) in Uttara – Mīmāmsa **or** Vedanta Darśana

Advaita Vedanta considers Arthapatti as a valid Pramāṇas. It is cognition accomplished through knowledge that has already been accomplished. Dharmarājadhvarindra explains Arthapatti in his Vedanta paribhāṣa, following the Mīmāmsakas.

तत्रोपपाद्यज्ञानेनोपपादककल्पनमथार्थापत्तिः । [VP, p. 117]

Pariphāṣakara distinguishes between two kinds of Arthapatti , such as Dṛṣṭ Arthapatti and Śrutārthāpatti. The former is presumption from what is seen and the latter is presumption from what is heard.

□□ □□□□□□त्तिर्द्वि□□□□ - दृष्टार्थापत्तिः श्रुतार्थापत्तिश्चेति ।

[Vedanta paribhāṣa, p. 118]

Dharmarāja differentiates Śrutharthapatti also into two: Abhidhānānupapatti and Abhihitanupapatti. The former is due to the incompleteness of the verbal expression and the latter due to the incompleteness of the meaning.[34]

Arthapatti was quite useful to the Mīmāmsakas for the explanation of vedic texts. Missing words and gaps in meanings could be filled in using presumption based on the Pramāṇas of Arthapatti .

Advaita also finds Arthapatti useful as a Pramāṇa for providing knowledge that cannot be explained by any other means. For instance, māya is presumed as the power of Brāhman to create the apparent world, which is a kind of Arthapatti .

Anupalabdi (Non-apprehension) as a Pramāṇas in Pūva- Mīmāmsa Darśana

In his Vedanta paribhāṣa, Dharmarājadhvarindra established Anupalabdhi as the sixth means of valid knowledge or Pramāṇa. Indian philosophy has discussed non-apprehension as abhāva. According to Mīmāmsakas the non-existence of something is understood by its non-perception. In other words, non-apprehension of a thing is a means to the apprehension of its non-existence.

The Naiyāyikas consider abhāva is a part of Pratyakṣa Pramāṇa; but Vaiśeṣika holds that abhāva is cognized through Anumāna (inference). The school of Prabhakara does not accept Anupalabdi as a valid Pramāṇa. Absence is cognized through perception, but it is not a distinctive means to knowledge. Non-existence hence cannot be considered as a distinctive category of Pramāṇa.

Kumarila Bhaṭṭa supports the view of Anupalabdhi as a valid Pramāṇa because when Pratyakṣa fails to operate to prove the existence

of an object the non – existence of the object may produce cognition through the means of Anupalabdhi or non-apprehension. For example, some times the absence of something can be conspicuous for cognition. Kumarila Bhaṭṭa explains that every object has two forms one of existence and the other of non- existence.

5.7. Anupalabdi **(non-apprehension) in** Uttara – Mīmāmsa **or** Vedanta Darśana

In his Vedanta paribhāṣa Dharmarājadhvarindra explains the nature of Anupalabdhi as a Pramāṇa. He says that it is the extraordinary apprehension of non-existence, which is not due to knowledge as an instrument.

ज्ञानकरणाजन्याभावानुभवा -

साधारणकारणमनुपलब्धिरूपं प्रमाणम् | [35]

[V.P. p. 125]

The Paribhāṣakāra puts forward the fourfold division of Abhāva or Anupalabdhi:-

1. Pragabhāva (previous non-existence)

2. Pradhvamsābhāva (destructional non-existence)

3. Atyntabhāva (absolute non-existence)

4. Anyonyabhava (mutual non-existence)

The sixth Pramāṇa called Anupalabdhi is non cognition. Modern Indian Philosophers point out that, when on entering a room one says "there is no fan in this room", the non – existence of the fan is a cognition which is not made by perception. Perception (Pratyakṣa) occurs when the object stimulates the senses. Here the non-existence cannot stimulate the sense. Instead, the cognition occurs due to the non-existence or Abhāva of the fan. Here Advaita says that non-existence or Abhāva is a negative fact which cannot stimulate any sense like the positive fact like an object. Hence the Bhaṭṭas and the Advaitins say that the non-existence of an object is known from the absence of its cognition, or its non-perception, which is termed Anupalabdhi.

In short, the view points of the Bhaṭṭa school of Mīmāmsakas are similar to those of the Advaita Philosophers also regarding the Pramāṇas.

Vedanta Darśana can be divided into two – Advaita Vedanta and Viśiṣṭadvaita.

The knowledge, which is not contradicted about external objects till the realisation of truth is real knowledge, according to Sāṅkhya acārya. The view point of Advaita Vedanta is that jñāthav (the knower) Jñuya (that which is to know) and Jñāna (knowledge) are the same. Saṅkarācārya

accepted only three Pramāṇas, which are Pratyakṣa, Anumāna and Śruti. But later Advaita Vedanta included three more Pramāṇas such as Upamāna, Arthapatti and Anupalabdhi.

Pratyakṣa is the knowledge which is imbibed through the senses. The knowledge acquired by means of reason or Yukti is called Anumāna. Śruti refers to that knowledge which is received on the basis of the vedic statements. IN the view of Saṅkara these three Pramāṇas go together and are not contradictory. The area of their application is also strong. If Śruti has no significance on the basis of reason, both Pratyakṣa and Anumāna have no significance on transcendental basis. Saṅkara did not give Pramāṇa status to all Śruti statements. He accepts them only after verifying their merit on the touchstone of reason (Yukti) and experience (Anubhava) Viśiṣta Advaita.

Rāmānujācārya accepts only three Pramāṇas as means to real knowledge. They are Pratyakṣa Anumāna and Āptavākya. Pratyakṣa has two subdivisions called Nirvikalpam and Savikalpam. Rāmānujācārya follows the view points of Nyāya and Vaiśeṣika Darśanas about Anumāna.

5.8 Pluralism and Inclusiveness in Āstika Darśanas

Pluralistic Inclusivism is a paradigm developed as an alternative for the theology of religions. K.P. Aleaz, a renowned Christian theologist formulated this theory following the path of Hans Reudi Weber, Gavin

D'Costa, Wilfred C. Smith, W.F. Hocking, John B. Cobb Jr; and Keith Ward. He explains the notion of Keith Ward that a Christian vedānta is one of the possibilities open to the believers and hopes that it can provide a model for other religious interactions in India.[36]

To the Christian believers Pluralistic Inclusivism provides growth in the richness of religious experience. [37] According to Aleaz richness of one's own religious experience grows by mutual giving and receiving Pluralistic Inclusivism advocates not only Christian faith, but also the faith experience of diverse religions. [38] It is a distinctive theology of religion highly relevant in the context of religious diversity in India. Christians, he says, like the other citizens of India, have to address the issues connected with religious diversity. They are also capable of responding creatively to this social reality in India.

Exclusivism, Inclusivism and Pluralism are the three major stand points with regard to the religious diversity of the Indian Context. In the theological point of view all the three approaches have their limitations. After examining all the three schools of thought in detail the well known theologian K.P. Aleaz puts forward an alternative model termed Pluralistic Inclusivism.

The supporters of 'Exclusivism' emphasize that salvation is possible only through Jesus Christ. Such view is not acceptable to other religions in the Indian context. Since in India religious diversity is a reality, Exclusivism

is not feasible.[39] Inclusivism is a religious dogma which accepts the presence of God that helps salvation in all religion. However, it puts emphasis on Christ as the authority for salvation. Inclusiveness recognizes the divine in all religions, but rejects them as insufficient for salvation. In this context Pluralism places the concept of God at the centre without specifying any particular name or dogma. However this wide view of religion has its limitations because here is no scope for any dynamic interaction between religions. Hence Aleaz points out that the concept of 'Pluralistic Inclusiveness' can promote interaction between different faiths which can contribute to each other.

5.9 The Relevance of Pluralism and Inclusivism in the Systems of Philosophical Perspectives

Plurality is a term that refers to the existence of different beliefs, practices and traditions or cultures within a land, society or community. The core of plurality is the concept of people holding diverse religious faiths or social views existing together with tolerance and understanding. Plurality in beliefs and differences in cultural views are important aspects in a secular society because together it enables an individual to respect the other and helps all to live in peace and harmony.

Inclusion of plurality is the practice of recognizing diverse perspectives, identities and view points of individuals within a society. Philosophically it highlights the necessity of recognizing the voice of others

belonging to different race, ethnicity, gender, sexuality or religion. In a democratic world – order the creation of an environment where every one is heard, valued and respected is a must. It can also be a fundamental aspect of promoting equality and social justice.

The philosophical systems in India are the products or rich and diverse tradition going back to thousands of years. The idea of unity in diversity symbolises not only the cultural and spiritual identity of India, but also reflects the multiplicity of perspectives denoting the inter relatedness of all existence.

The harmony behind the Plurality of philosophical views in India has its roots in Vedic philosophy as well as its child Advaita Vedānta. The ancient religious texts of India, the Vedas, teaches a perspective built on the multifaceted nature of existence. Advaita Vedānta upholds non-dualism which looks at everything as an expression of the ultimate reality, termed Brahman. However, the existence of the phenomenal world is not negated, and all apparent differences are considered illusions; thus it highlights the unity underlying diversity, and hence Plurality shows that inspite of the apparent multiplicity there is essential oneness.

Acceptance of the sanctity of difference in belief systems fosters understanding, tolerance and good will among the people so that social harmony is created among diverse cultural groups and religious sects.

The socio-cultural identity and characters of India has its roots on the principles of plurality. As a result, the Constitution of India guards and protects the right of equality among all citizens irrespective of their social, cultural, religious or linguistic differences. Inclusiveness or plurality has a crucial role in the growth of social harmony. The pramāṇas of the Darśanas of India reiterate the perspective of oneness behind the apparent differences which are superficial and illusory. Though diverse systems of thought like polytheism, henotheism, monotheism and monism have existed, Reality is viewed as one, manifested in different ways.

The main merit of the Indian Darśanas is that there are various possibilities of achieving knowledge. Different pramāṇas provide diverse approaches to understand reality. This admission of diversity is the inherent quality of Indian philosophy in general and Astika Darśanas in particular.

5.10 Pluralistic Inclusiveness in the context of Darśanas

For Śaṅkara śruti is the primary and authoritative scripture to explain the transcendental knowledge. He had complete faith in the authority of śruti, which he accepted as infallible. Saṅkara built up his thoughts on Advaita Vedānta on the authority of the Mahāvākyas. As he employs the principle of Lakṣana as a hermeneutical tool, his doctrines can be interpreted on their implication. In Śaṅkara's Advaita Vedānta,

Brāhman is the non-dual (A –dvaita) Absolute. Advaita is the denial of dualism. As Aleaz says Śaṅkara's thoughts centering on the Upaniṣads is really enlightening. God is all in all for us and for the rest of all living and non-living beings. Humans have no independent existence as such, but are fully dependent on the Absolute.[40] Aleaz further points out that when compared with other Jīvas human beings have got pre-eminence because of his/her competence for karma and knowledge. [41]

According to Śaṅkara Vedānta śruti statements serve two purposes. One is to teach us the true nature of the supreme self, and the other is to teach us the unity of the self of knowledge with the supreme self (Brahmasūtra Bhāṣya 1.3.25). The first group of statements provide us the definitions (lakṣaṇas) of the Absolute. These definitions can be either swarūpa (essential) and nirapekṣa (non-relational) or tat āstha (non-essential) and upalakṣaṇa (relational). Swarūpa lakṣaṇa indicates the true nature of Brahman. All statements like satyam jñānamanantam brahma (Tait.Up. 2.1) come under this group. Tatāstha lakṣaṇa indicates the true Brahman, but through tatāstha (indifferent) to its true nature. The second group of statements, according to Saṅkara helps us to identify the Absolute correctly. It includes all statements like Tattvamasi (Chan. Up. 6.8.7), Ahambrahmāsmi (Br.Up. 1.4.10), Ayamatmabrahma (Br. Up. 2.5.19) etc.

Among the six pramāṇas recognized by the Āstika Darśanas Śabda or Śruti is regarded as a prominent and legitimate means of knowledge acquisition. It is the veracity of scriptural statements that help us to identify truth. As a pramāṇa it plays an important role in shaping the philosophical, ethical and religious conviction of the believers.

Neo-Vedāntic Christology has developed a dialogical concept of Indian theology. It provides an ideological basis for religious harmony by mutual acceptance of diverse religious faiths. The principles of Neo-Vedānta emphasize the possibility of Hinduism and Christianity coming together inspite of their theological differences. It gives Indians pride in their culture of tolerance and harmony. It also provides an ideological basis for a life based on peace, love and freedom, by the endeavour to synthesize Advaita, Viśiṣṭadvaita and Dvaita systems of philosophy.

5.11 Understanding Pluralism and Inclusiveness in Indian Philosophical Context

Though India is rich in its vast tradition of diverse religious views and forms of belief, it is doubtful whether many religions have paid enough attention to the methodological and epistemological questions regarding their philosophical basis. Epistemology is the theory of knowledge, which is the core of any system of philosophy, and the different sources of knowledge are most central to it. Different schools of Indian philosophy

have presented their own systematic positions of the different pramāṇas. However religions other than Hinduism have not put forward directly any particular pramāṇa of their religious faith. Attempts have been made to trace the use of the six pramāṇas on Christian faith by Christian theologians.[42] K.P. Aleaz, for instance, has tried to articulate that the Christian Theological method as emerging from the Indian Philosophical pramāṇas.

In Indian philosophy there is no distinction between theology and metaphysics, since both are concerned with the problems of human understanding of reality. It accepts Śabda (verbal testimony) as a valid pramāṇa, and hence Indian Christian Theology finds the possibility of accepting the pramāṇa as base of its philosophy of belief.

Though the Darśanas of India differ in answering the epistemological questions they have influenced each other. However, the view of Vedānta has been considered as the final word.[43] Indian heritage of Christian belief has accepted whole heartedly the richness of Indian philosophical perspectives, especially its epistemology. By upholding Śabda as an ultimate source of knowledge, Christian theology like Advaita Vedānta also establishes the authority of the Vedas. Well known Christian theologians of India like Robin Boyd, A.J. Appasamy, A.P. Nirmal and Mar Gregorios have made detailed and critical studies on the Indian

philosophical framework with special emphasis on the pramāṇas. Attempts have been made to establish an authentic theological method bringing out points of convergence and divergence with regard to the hermeneutical base of the pramāṇas. Dr. Aleaz also holds the view that the pramāṇas would serve the purpose of transcending the parochial and narrow view of religions.

5.12 Plurality and Inclusiveness in the Indian Philosophical Context

Famous Christian Theologians unlike A.J. Appasamy[44] have given total freedom to the pramāṇas of Indian Philosophy to function as Indian Christian Pramāṇas. They accept the Indian pramāṇas totally as they are. They do not reject any pramāṇa or re-interpret them to suit a pre-formulated Christian epistemology.

The richness of Indian Philosophy and its epistemology has become part and parcel of the Indian Christian heritage and it has been whole – heartedly recognized in the formulation of an authentic Christian Theological method. [45]

According to the Christian theologian K.P. Aleaz the reformulation of the perspectives of Exclusivism, Inclusivism and Pluralism is essential for religious harmony in India. He argues that if the general principles of Christian belief can be influenced by the findings of gospel scholars like

Kremer or Barth, they can as well be influenced by the philosophies of Śaṅkara, Buddha or the prophet. He further points out that the Revelation in Jesus itself denies Exclusivists and people of other faiths might contribute to the understanding of Christ in us.

By his elaborate discussions on the contribution of Śaṅkara's Advaita Vedānta K.P. Aleaz has tried to make the content of the Revelations truly Pluralistic.[46] The chief advantage of pluralism allowing inclusiveness in religious belief is that it can promote a change in our attitude towards other faiths and traditions. The practice of accepting the good aspects of all religions would help us in our journey towards a better world. In a multi religious country like India there can not be any question of superiority or inferiority among religious. Aleaz claims that as a result of pluralistic inclusiveness different religions might contribute to each other on their faith experience, and each path might became rich by receiving insights from the other.[47]

Plurality inclusiveness is the affirmation of the common identity and unique ness of all religious experiences and every religious becomes a witness to the 'world faith' or world theology. The term 'faith' is world theology. The term 'faith is redefined in the transcendental dimension, and in this process the pramāṇas of India have contributed much.

The basic tenet of the Indian pramāṇas is that there are various paths to truth and knowledge. Different pramāṇas of India allow different approaches to the realization of reality. This acceptance of diversity is the unique quality of the Āstika Darśanas, which fosters environment of encouragement to seekers of knowledge. It is this factor that attracted students and scholars from distant parts of the world to the ancient universities of India like Nalanda and Taxilla when the rest of the world was in darkness.

Bishop A.J. Appasamy, taking support from Ramanuja believes that direct religious experience (anubhava) gives true knowledge of God, and scripture (śruti) provides the ground for it.[48] According to R.H. S. Boyd Indian theology shows that we can have direct experience of Christ (anubhava or pratyakṣa) which should be in association with Sruti Madhyamika (middle path) between Śaṅkara's Advaita Vedānta and Lokayavada. Metropolitan Paul Gregorious is another prominent Indian theologian who has discussed Indian epistemology. He says that we cannot reject other scriptures such as Hindu, Buddhist, Muslim, Jain, Sikh etc as totally Invalid.[49]

5.13 Theories of Theological Dogma Regarding Plurality and Inclusive ness

The major merit of Indian Pramāṇas is that they recognize that there are many legitimate paths to reach truth and knowledge. Different persons may utilize different pramāṇas which provide diverse approaches to understand reality. This inherent quality of the Āstika Pramāṇas can foster an inclusive environment for those who seek knowledge.

The term 'Pluralistic Inclusivism' was coined by K.P. Aleaz, a well known Christian Theologian and Scholar of Biblical studies. In his book Harmony of Religions: The Relevance of Swami Vivekananda, Aleaz puts forward three approaches namely, Exclusivism, Inclusivism and Pluralism. Those who support Exclusivism emphasize the point that salvation is possible only through Jesus Christ. A similar exclusivist point of view might be followed by a member of another faith who believes that only his religion can lead believers to heaven. Such views are not helpful to social harmony especially in a pluralistic country like India.

Inclusivistic approach, according to Aleaz, accepts that the presence of salvation is possible in other religions also, but feels that divine presence is not sufficient for salvation. On the other hand, pluralism does not stick on to any particular God or divinity as the authority for

salvation. The limitation of this view is that there is no dynamic interaction between the different religious dogmas.

In the contemporary situation of hostility, distrust and intolerance among the warring religions and rising secretarianism in the world, what we require today is dynamic interaction between different faiths. The sacred texts and relevations of all religions might contribute so that the endeavour might become truly inclusive.

The true perspective of pluralistic inclusivm is a reformulation of the principles of Exclusivism, inclusivm and pluralism. Pluralistic Inclusivism, according to Aleaz makes pluralism inclusive and Inclusivism pluralistic.[50] Christian theology in contemporary Indian Scenario has recognized the importance of a reformulation of perspective regarding Exclusivism, Inclusivism and Pluralism.[51] This attitude would help the building up of strong inter- religious relation among the different faith traditions of the country. Pluralistic Inclusion is against the tendency of considering one's own religious tradition as 'superior' to the existence of other communities and their faith. It can promote healthy and meaningful 'inter religious relation' and the creation of 'oneness' among all.

According to Keith Ward a Christian Vedānta is a possibility open to the believer which can provide a model for other religions to follow in their own way.[52] K.P. Aleaz explains the concept of Jesuology in the light of the

writings of Śaṅkara. He relates the Advaita Vedānta of Śaṅkara as a first step of the demonstration of pluralistic inclusiveness. The result is a relational convergence of Hinduism and Christianity.[53] Jesus is represented here as human presentation of Jivatma. He also explains how Jesus becomes the Upadhi (Extensic Denominator) of Brahman, the Name and Form (Nama – Rupa) of Brahman and the Effect (Karya) of Brahman. [54]

K.P. Aleaz observes that the difference between the individual self and the Supreme Self is a creation of the extrinsic denominators constituted by name and form, and pointes out that this point is supported by many passages from the Upanishads. For instance

he sights Chandogya Upanishad, 6.2.1, 7.25.3

Mundaka Upanishad, 2.2.11

Brihad Aranyaka Upanishad 2.4.6

1.4.10, 4.4.18,4.4.25,3.7.23 and

Bhagad Gita 7.4 and 13.2.27

Perhaps the greatest contribution of Aleaz to Indian Philosophical thought is that he could explain the understanding of the function of Jesus without adding to or re-interpreting anything to Śaṅkara's writings. He interpreted the functions of Jesus as representing the all pervasive power

of the Supreme self. He points out that the function of Jesus is actually as the eternally present pure consciousness which is nothing but an aspect of the Supreme Brahman.[55] Christian theological dogmas also teach us that it is through the grace of the light of self that all our activities take place. The message of Jesus Christ to the whole creation is that the Supreme self is one and illuminates all bodies, both moving and unmoving. Jesus affirms that the light of consciousness exists in all alike, both in moving and unmoving objects. K.P. Aleaz points out that Jesus functions as the unifying power of Brahman - Atman. [56]

K.P. Aleaz takes Jesus as a representation of the whole human kind. It is considered important that Jesus affirmed the reality of Brahman through his self sacrifice. Its relevance can be brought to humanity only if the exclusive claims of the religions are discarded. [57]

The concept of Pluralistic inclusivsm has been developed in India as a distinctive theology of religious, because it is relevant to the context of religious diversity in India. As the Christians of Indira are basically the citizens of India, it becomes relevant that the basic reality of the society should be recognized. K.P.Aleaz considers it as the prime duty and responsibility of the Christian system of belief in India. He points out that changes and developments are taking place in the theology of religions in India. [58]

Exclusivism, Inclusivism and pluralism are the three schools of thought in the theology of religions. Karl Barth, the proponent of exclusivism advocated the notion that there is no truth in any other religion except Christianity. Aleax points out that this Barthian Exclusivism is not relevant in India, because of the country's socio- cultural background. In the multi-religious society of India mutual acceptance and sharing of religious views is necessary and it is possible only under pluralistic Inclusiveness. Aleaz tries to make the faith in Jesus truly pluralistic by accepting the contributions of Śaṅkara's Advaita Vedānta.[59]

Wilfred C.Smith in his theological treatise on world religions explains that theology verbalises faith and this can be done only from inside, without excluding any one.[60] In the religious history of the world this view has proved more viable and authentic than the narrow minded view point of individual religious. Wilfred Smith looks at two opposing religious views not as a challenge for confrontation, but as an invitation to synthesis. [61]

Some Christian thinkers of India have chosen Advaita Vedānta of Śaṅkara as a comer store over which they have constructed their own Christology as relevant to the Indian context. Aleaz accepts totally all the insights of Jiva Brahman concept arrived at through the analysis of the writings of Śaṅkara and uses them fully in framing a model to understand

Jesus. In other words his endeavour is to construct an Indian Jesus or Jesuology from the Indian hermeneutical context. He believes that two factors have helped him in this attempt. They are his own personal experience of Advaita Vedāntic intuition and his own Jesus- experience.

5.14 Resume

As stated some Pramāṇas in India were theistic, while there were atheistic Pramāṇas also which received equal importance. There were differences in the dogmas of the Pramāṇas including the Pramāṇas. The Cāvāka school of belief recognized only what is perceived through the senses or Pratyakṣa. Vaiśeṣika Pramāṇas accepted two Pramāṇas, which are Pratyakṣa and Anumāna. Both Sānkhya and Yoga Pramāṇas had given Pramāṇa status to three means of knowledge, which are Pratyakṣa, Anumāna and Śabda.

Nyāya Pramāṇas recognized four Pramāṇas which are Pratyakṣa, Anumāna, Upamāna and Śabda. The school of Mīmāmsa Pramāṇas later split into two one under Kumarila Bhaṭṭa and the other under Prabhakara Miśra. The had divergent views on the number of Pramāṇas. While Kumarila recognized six Pramāṇas including Arthapathi and Anupalabdi, Prabhakara denies Pramāṇa status to Anupalabdi or non-cognition. Moreover, Prabhakara who is more meticulous than Kumarila accepts only

scriptural words as Śabda, while Kumarila Bhaṭṭa recognizes the words of reliable persons also as Śabda Pramāṇa.

Rāmānuja Ācārya's Viśiṣṭadvaita accepts only three Pramāṇas like the Sānkhya and Vaiśeṣika. They are Pratyakṣa, Anumāna and Śabda (or aptavākya). However, Ācārya Sānkhya's Advaita Vedānta recognizes all the six Pramāṇas like Kumarila Bhaṭṭa's Mīmāmsa Darśana. Sri Sankara did not give Pramāṇa status to all Śruti statements. He accepted them only after evaluating their merit using the power of reason.

According to the famous philosopher of Science Thiomas Kuhn a paradigm is a standard, perspective, or set of ideas. It is a way of looking at something. 20th century Christian theologians of India consider it as a set of beliefs, values and techniques shared by the members of a community. The pramanas of Indian darsanas are significant epistomological tools to understand reality. Scholars like Dr. Aleaz K.P. have endeavourered to develop a paradigm from the Indian pramanas which might help the hermeneutical base of the dogmas.[62]

It is well known that in the contemporary times the world witnesses the rise of religious fundamentalism. Each religious groups vehemently stick on to the exclusive superiority of their own faith and openly discards the tenets of other religious dogmas. The Pramāṇas of Indian Darśanas, on the other hand, present before us a path of tolerance and spirit of

harmony as there is the presence of unity in the apparent diversity of views.

Religious extremism and fundamentalism terrocize the world into a state of panic. Even religious that have common foundation and roots are breeding intolerance and hatred towards each other. It is therefore necessary to seek the possibility of pluralism and inclusiveness in religious matters. In the past missionaries has faced formidable situations to spread the message of Christian compassion to the poor and the suffering people of India.

At present the Christian missionaries also are aware of the need of the need of the times, ie. to be involved in developing a wider concept of their mission. They put forward the message to live out in a pluralistic context. The concept of plurality calls for the need to live a happy calls for the need to live a happy life with in diverse cultures and religious as faithful disciples of Christ. Rather than separating them selves from the cultural tradition of the country they are integrating into the world of real-thirst like impression in the minds of their neighbouring faiths.

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